

Preface

Who is This Book For?

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Why Write Yet Another Book About Linear Algebra?

The direct answer to this question is simple: I really think most resources are doing a *bad job* of explaining fundamental linear algebra to new students ¹. Not because they lack material or the complete picture - but because the common approach to teaching fundamental mathematical topics just doesn't work well for most people ².

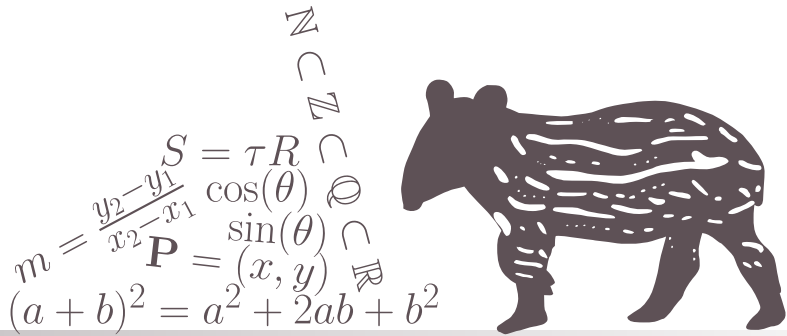
Introduction courses to fundamental mathematical topics usually look like this: here're some basic definitions, let's derive some specific results from them - now go apply these in your field.

¹and honestly, this isn't restricted to linear algebra but applies to all fundamental mathematical topics - but it's a classic case

²the main exception is students of pure mathematics and people who can easily deal with extremely abstract concepts - a very specific group of people at the end of the day

1

MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND



It should be!

1.1 PREFACE

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Testing some equations: let $\vec{x}, \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$. Then from the fact that $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a vector space, we get

$$\vec{c} = \alpha\vec{x} + \beta\vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n. \quad (1.1)$$

However, if $\vec{a} \in \mathbb{R}^m$, where $m \neq n$, then $\alpha\vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^m$, and therefore $\vec{c}$ is not defined (i.e. Equation 1.1 is irrelevant).

Now, this is a test of the *aligned* environment, which allows for multiple (correctly-aligned) lines of equations and having the label only once (instead of per line, as in the *align* environment):

$$\begin{aligned} \sin(2x) &= \frac{1}{2i} \left(e^{2xi} - e^{-2xi} \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2i} \left(\left[e^{xi} \right]^2 - \left[e^{-xi} \right]^2 \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2i} \underbrace{\left(e^{xi} - e^{-xi} \right)}_{\sin(x)} \underbrace{\left(e^{xi} + e^{-xi} \right)}_{2 \cos(x)} \\ &= 2 \sin(x) \cos(x). \end{aligned} \quad (1.2)$$

Note 1.1 Test note

This is a test note. I will try to also refernce it later.



Now, I wish to reference [Note 1.1](#). Did it work?

Also, let us look at an example.

Example 1.1 Some test example

If $x = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 \end{bmatrix}$ and $y = \begin{bmatrix} 5 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$, then $n = 3$ and $m = 2$. Clearly, $n \neq m$ - and so $\alpha \vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, while $\beta \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^2$. This means that $\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}$ is not defined.



...let's check if referencing an example works correctly: can you see [Example 1.1](#)?

I believe it is now time for some figures! See [Figure 1.1](#).

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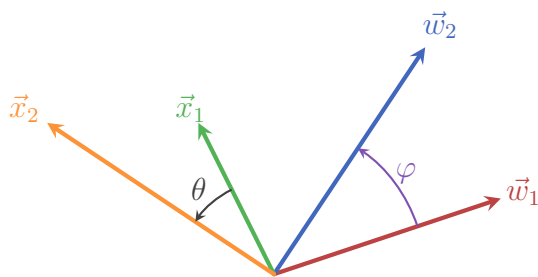


Figure 1.1: This is the first test figure.

Does it look ok?

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CHAPTER 1. MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND

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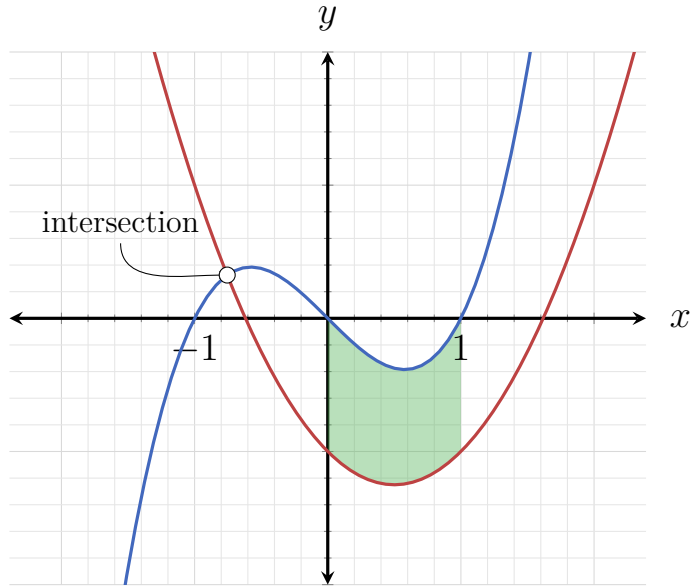


Figure 1.2: And this is another test figure! I hope it works.

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1.1. PREFACE

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CHAPTER 1. MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND

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$$T(\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}) = \alpha T(\vec{x}) + \beta T(\vec{y})$$

$$\langle \vec{a} | \vec{b} \rangle = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i \quad \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0 \Leftrightarrow \vec{a} \perp \vec{b}$$

$$\mathbb{I}_n = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 1 \end{pmatrix} \quad \mathbf{A} \vec{x} = \lambda \vec{x} \quad (\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B})^T = \mathbf{B}^T \cdot \mathbf{A}^T$$

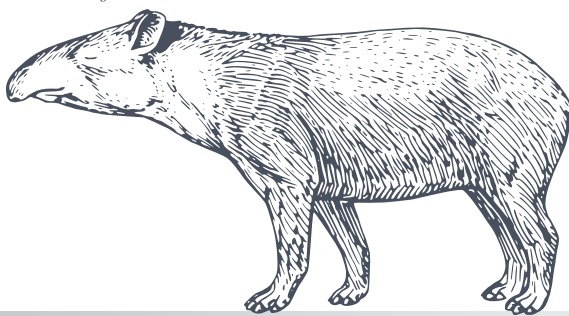
$$\vec{v} = \alpha_1 \hat{e}_1 + \alpha_2 \hat{e}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n \hat{e}_n \quad \det(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B}) = \det(\mathbf{A}) \cdot \det(\mathbf{B})$$

$$\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B} \Rightarrow c_j^i = \langle a^i | b_j \rangle$$

CHAPTER

2

THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA



This chapter introduces the most important concepts of linear algebra, such as vector spaces, linear transformations, and eigenvectors and eigenvalues. Starting with simple 2- and 3-dimensional geometric concepts, the chapter guides the reader through the topics by introducing them in a visual and intuitive way, only generalizing them afterwards.

CHAPTER 2. THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

After reading this chapter and successfully completing the assignments at the end, the reader should have an intuitive understanding of basic linear algebra.

2.1 INTRODUCTION AND MOTIVATION

2.2 VECTORS AND VECTOR SPACES

Summary 2.1

This section presents the two most fundamental concepts in linear algebra: **vectors** and **vector spaces**.

We will:

1. introduce **vectors**, their properties and basic operations between vectors.
2. Learn how vectors can be described algebraically using **coordinate systems/basis sets**.
3. See how we can define **vector spaces** and **vector subspaces**, and their uses.
4. And finally, we will describe the geometric meaning of all these structures and how they relate to analytical geometry in 2- and 3-dimensions.



(here comes the actual text)

...

2.3 LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

Summary 2.2 The Next Two Sections

This section and the one immediately following it deal with a rather simple, yet very powerful type of functions between vector spaces: **linear transformations**.

In this section we will:

1. see why are we interested in linear transformations,
2. what are their properties, and
3. how they can provide a powerful tool for many different applications.

In the next section we will explore how we can turn the calculations of linear transformations into an extremely easy and straight-forward process using **matrices**.



2.3.1 Introduction

Text text text...

...

The main purely mathematical property of linear transformations is that they preserve the structure of vector spaces. This means that if we have three vectors $\vec{a}$, $\vec{b}$ and $\vec{c}$ such that $\vec{c} = \alpha\vec{a} + \beta\vec{b}$, then for any linear transformation T ,

$$T(\vec{c}) = \alpha T(\vec{a}) + \beta T(\vec{b}). \quad (2.1)$$

(see [Figure 2.1](#) for a visual example)

However, this is a rather abstract way of discussing linear transformations. Instead, let's first learn some of the more "graphical" properties of linear transformations in the plane, i.e. $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$, and then see practical examples of such transformations before moving on to their more abstract (and powerful) mathematical description.

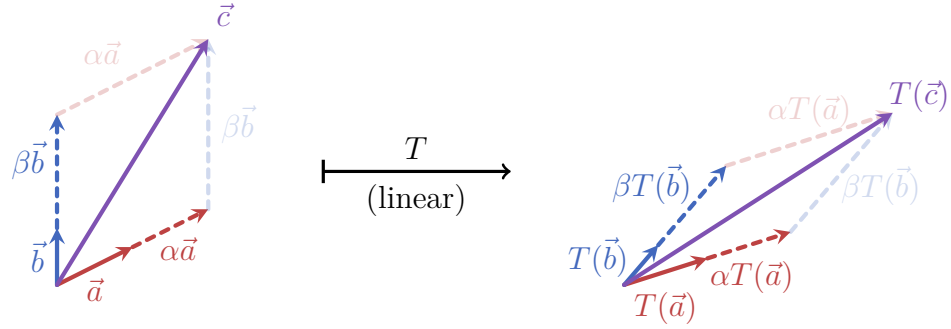


Figure 2.1: Two vectors $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$ are both scaled (by α and β , respectively) and then added together to form the vector $\vec{c}$. All the addition and scaling relations between the vectors are kept under the application of a linear transformation T .

Any linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ always has the following four properties:

- **The origin is kept untouched:** T always maps $\vec{0}$ to $\vec{0}$.
- **Lines remain lines:** a set of points forming a line in $\mathbb{R}^2$ will be mapped to another set of points forming a line (with possibly different direction, distance from origin and scale).
- **Parallel directions remain parallel:** if $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$ point at the same direction, then $\vec{b} = \alpha\vec{a}$ for some $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. After the transformation the maps of $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$ will stay parallel, and would even keep their scalar relation: $T(\vec{b}) = \alpha T(\vec{a})$.
- **All areas are scaled by the same factor:** if two shapes S_1 and S_2 have areas A_1 and A_2 , respectively, before the transformation is applied, their maps $\tilde{S}_1$ and $\tilde{S}_2$ would have the areas kA_1 and kA_2 (where $k \in \mathbb{R}$ depends on the transformation and can take both positive, zero and negative values).

Figure 2.2 shows these properties in action: there are two planes in the figure - before and after the application of a random linear transformation T (up and down, respectively). The following can be seen:

1. The origin stays at the same place - see how a small purple dot placed on the origin doesn't change its position after the application of T .
2. All lines (e.g. axes, grid lines, the two purple lines) are mapped to lines in the transformed plane.

2.3. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

3. Parallel directions remain parallel, e.g. grid lines aligned with one of the axes, and the two purple lines.
4. All areas are scaled by the same factor: notice for example how all unit squares formed by the grid lines (one is highlighted in orange) are mapped to identical parallelograms. You can also check to see that the blue rectangle is exactly twice as large than the orange square before and after the transformation.

The example in [Figure 2.2](#) also shows what *doesn't* get preserved under a linear transformation. To see this more clearly, [Figure 2.3](#) “zooms-in” on the orange unit square: we label its vertices as **O**, **A**, **B** and **C** starting from the point at the origin and going anti-clockwise. The transformed vertices are then, respectively, **O'**, **A'**, **B'** and **C'**.

In the original unit square the diagonals are equal: their lengths are $\mathbf{OB} = \mathbf{AC} = \sqrt{2}$. However, it's clear that $\mathbf{O'B'} < \mathbf{A'C'}$. In addition, all the angles in the original unit square are, of course, right angles, but the transformed square is a parallelogram ($\mathbf{O'A'B'C'}$) has two equal acute angles of value α and two equal obtuse angles of value β (where $\beta = \pi - \alpha$).

So we can see that at least two quantities aren't necessarily conserved by linear transformations: (1) **distances**, which unlike areas don't even all scale by the same amount, and (2) **angles** (more generally, **directions**).

One last key observation before we move on: as can be seen in [Figure 2.2](#) and [Figure 2.3](#) linear transformations in $\mathbb{R}^2$ transform **squares** into **parallelograms**. These parallelograms can be scaled, “squeezed”, reflected and/or rotated compared to the original squares.

2.3.2 Linear Transformations in 2-Dimensions

Here comes an introductory text about the fundamental linear transformations in $\mathbb{R}^2$, what are their properties and some more relevant information...

We saw how

...

There are several “basic” linear transformations in $\mathbb{R}^2$: these transformations can

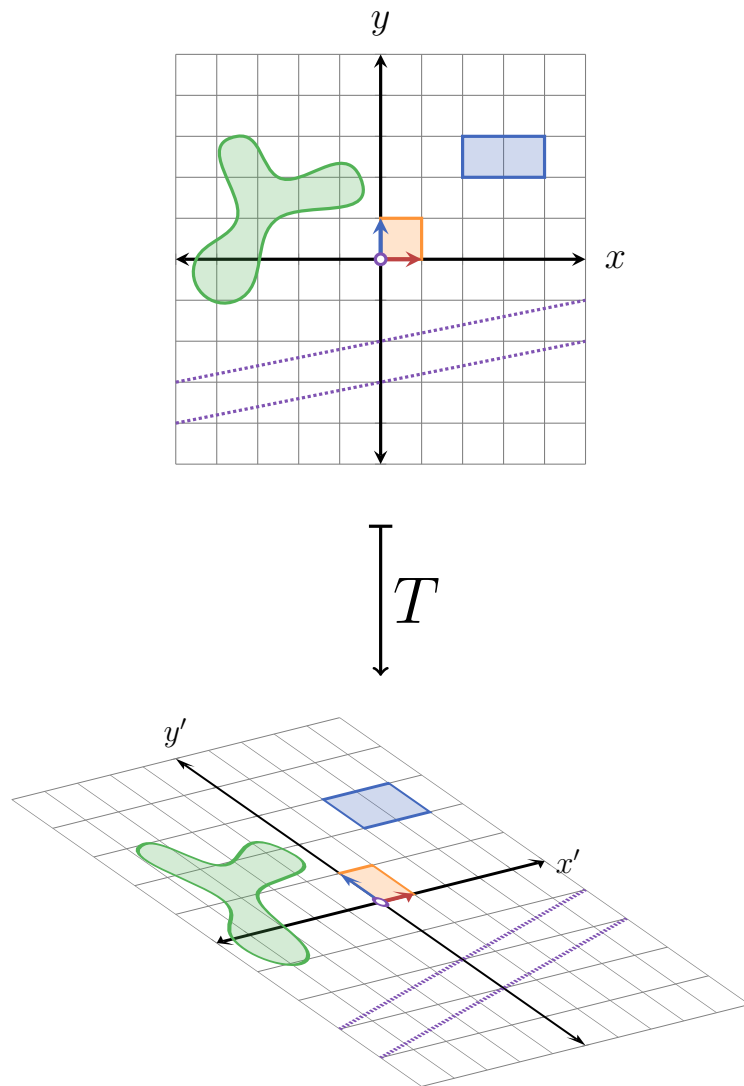


Figure 2.2: Some random linear transformation T applied to $\mathbb{R}^2$, with different shapes showing the four main properties discussed for linear transformations.

2.3. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

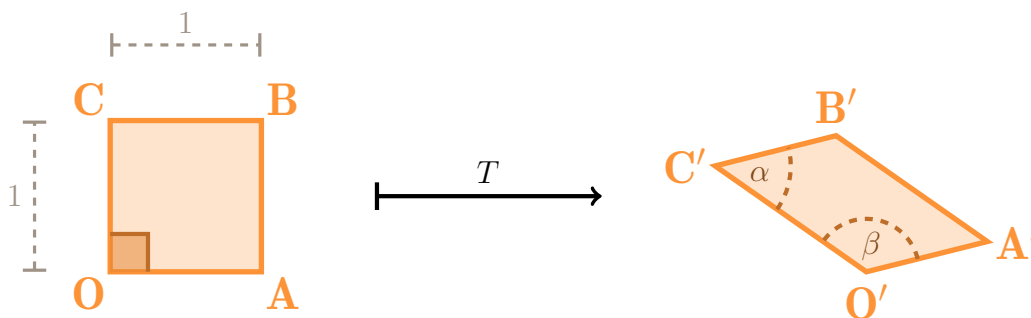


Figure 2.3: Unit square in $\mathbb{R}^2$ before and after the application of the random linear transformation T from Figure 2.2.

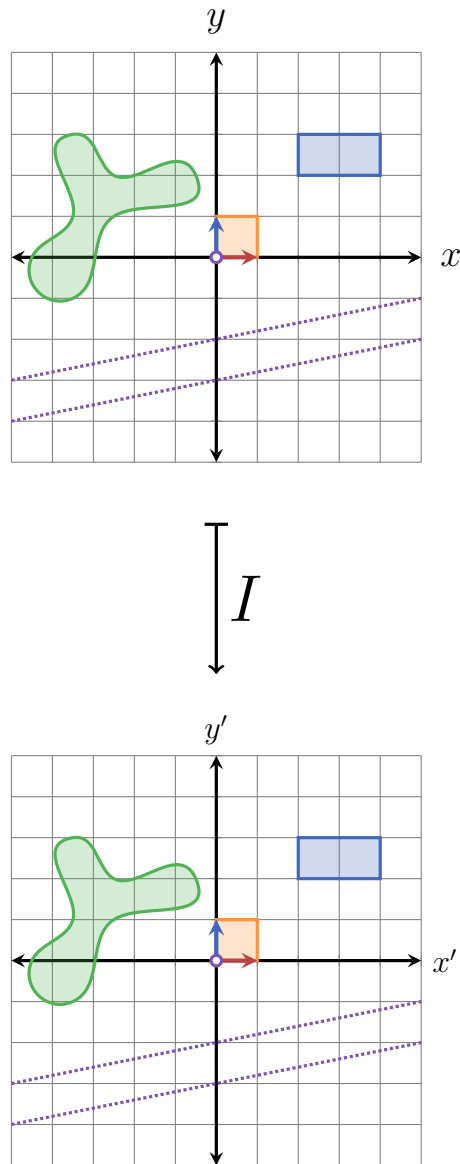
be thought of as the building blocks of all possible linear transformations on a 2-dimensional plane. We will see later how we can combine these basic transformations to create new transformations, but first let's introduce these "basic" linear transformations.

In the following introduction, each transformation is shown using a drawing of $\mathbb{R}^2$ with several shapes on it: the two standard basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$, a unit area between the two vectors (drawn in orange), a blue rectangle, two purple parallel lines, a somewhat random green shape¹ and the grid lines (or rather, grid dots). When looking at these figures you should pay attention to how each shape is deformed, and especially what relationships are kept the same or are changed: for example, parallel lines remain parallel - but other angles between lines (including 90°) are not kept. Also note the areas of the different shapes and how they change under the transformation.

Let's begin:

- **The identity transformation:** not doing anything to the plane is a transformation, even if a rather boring one:

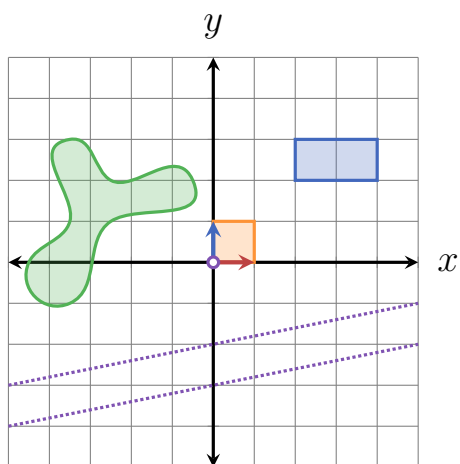
¹I shamelessly stole the shape from <https://tikz.org/examples/chapter-12-drawing-smooth-curves/> because it's perfect for this illustration.



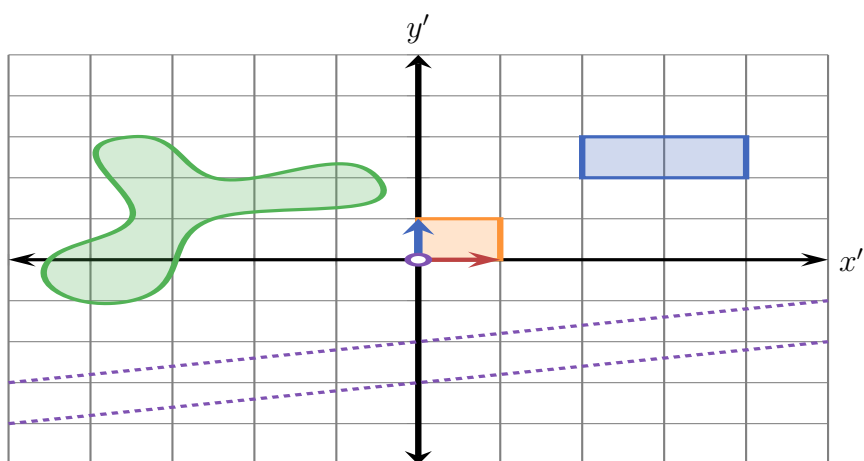
Indeed, the identity transformation has all of three key properties of linear transformations: the origin is preserved, parallel lines remain parallel after the transformation, and all areas are scaled by the same factor (namely 1).

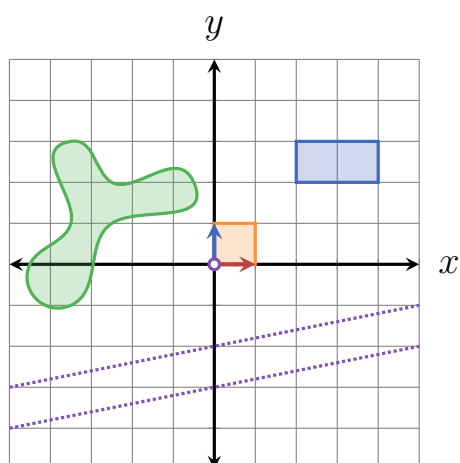
- **Scaling:** Scaling the plane can be done in either the x -direction or the y -direction. Just as with vectors, the scaling factor can be any real number, positive or negative (where negative scaling factors flip the direction of the axis):

2.3. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

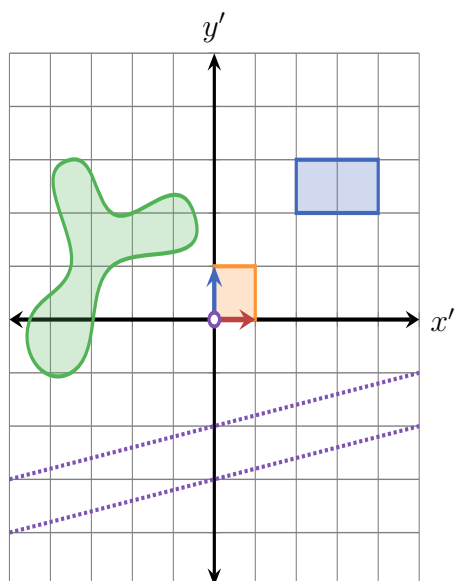


S_x



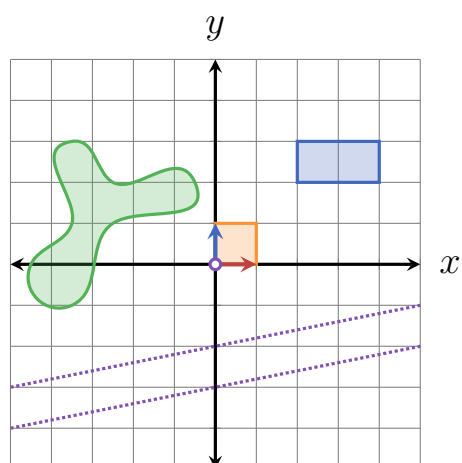


S_y

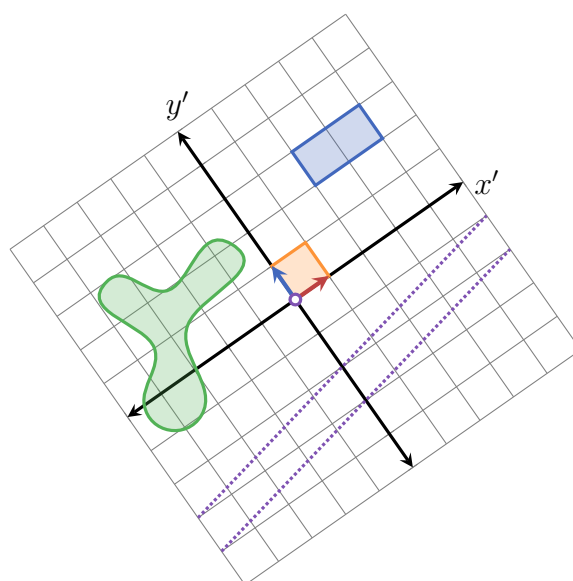


- Rotation about the origin, anti-clockwise: text text text:

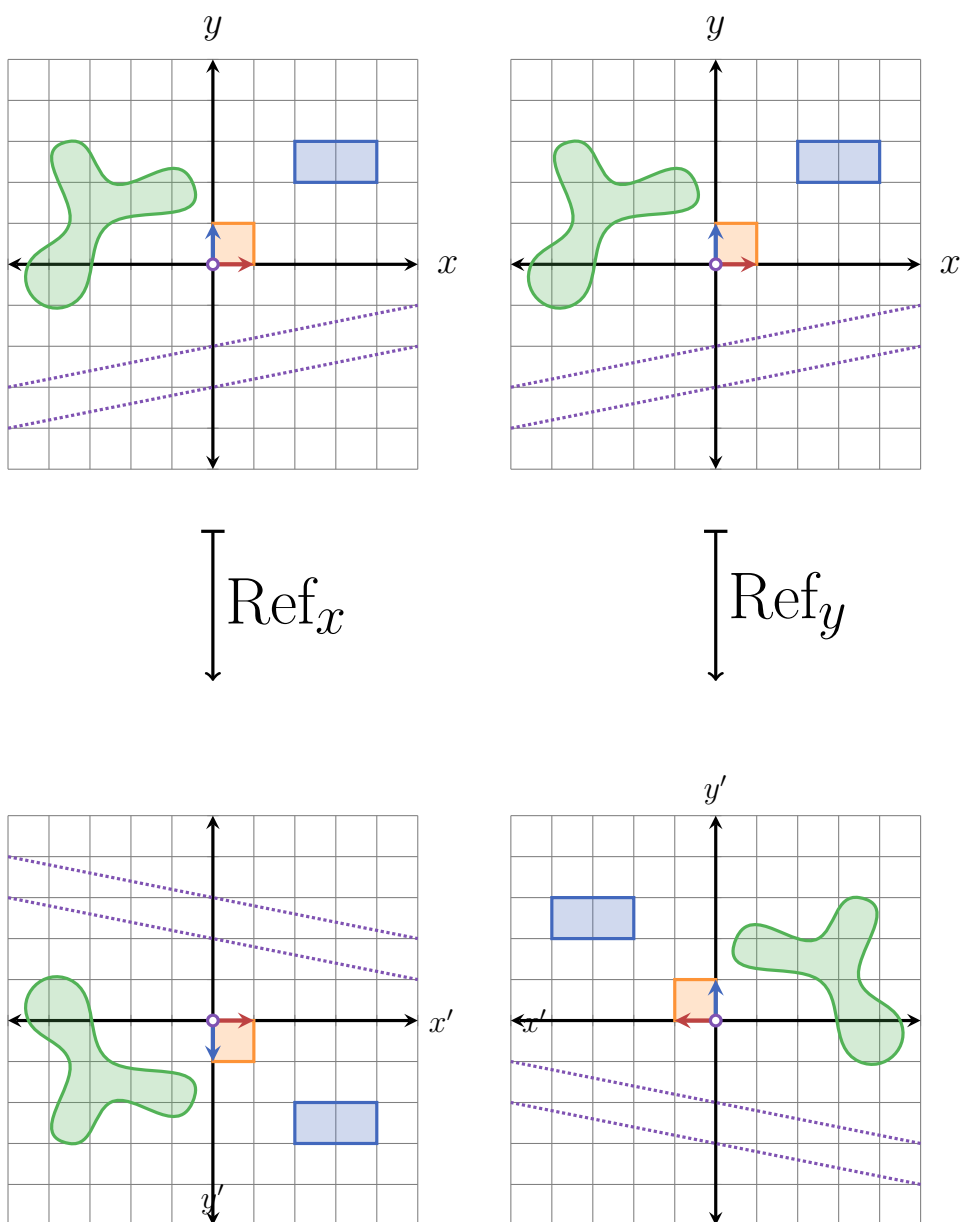
2.3. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS



$$R_\theta$$

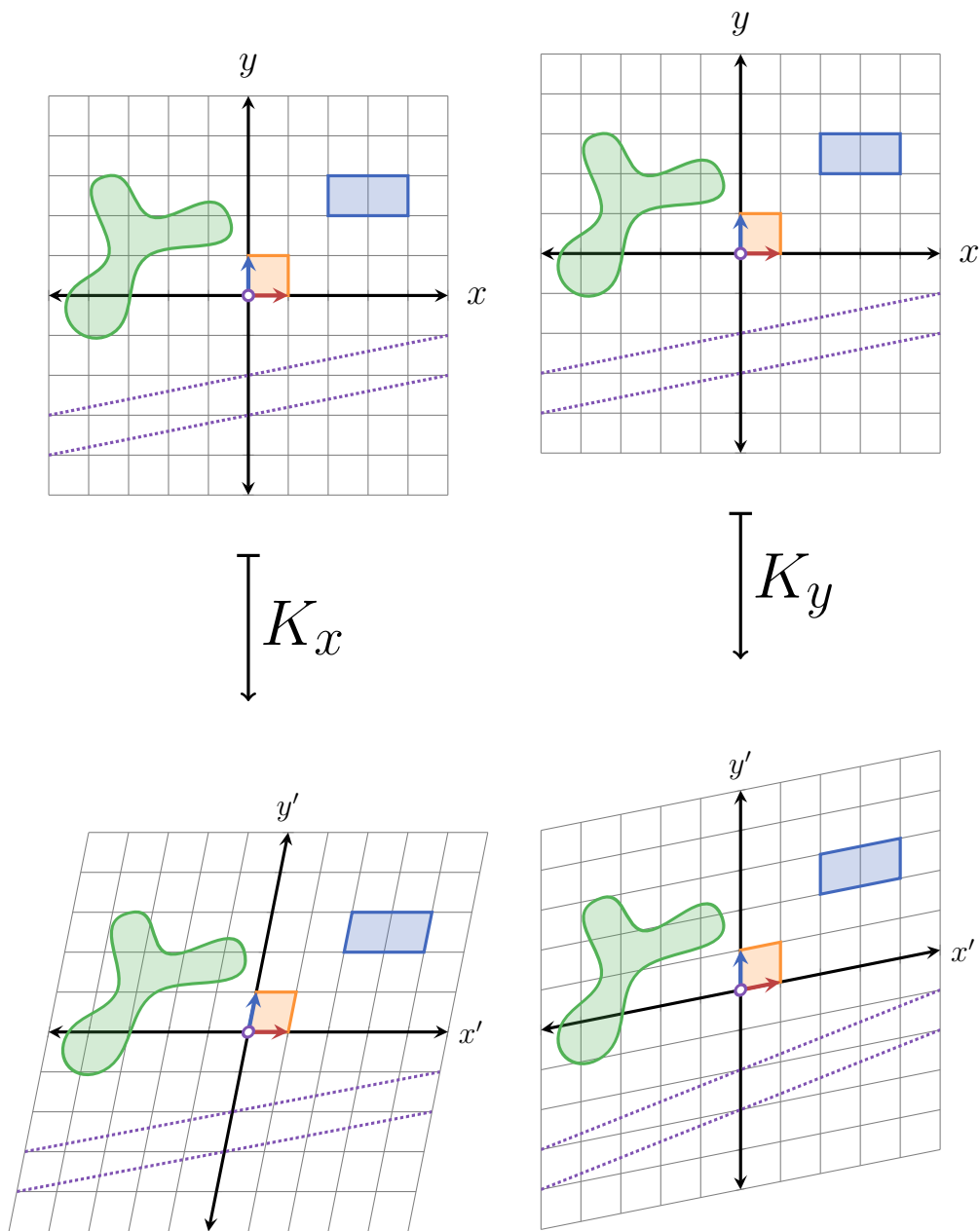


- **Reflection across a line through the origin:** text text text:

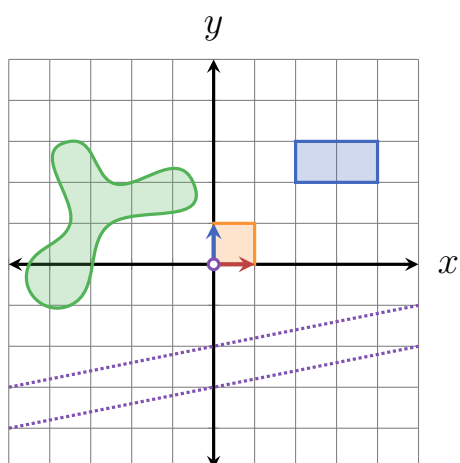


- **Shear:** text text text:

2.3. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS



- Projection on line through the origin: text text text:



$\downarrow$
 P

y'
 x'

2.3.3 Composition of Basic Linear Transformations

2.3.4 Examples of Non-Linear Transformations in 2-Dimensions

2.3.5 Formal Definition

The formal definition of linear transformations between any two vector spaces is the following:

Definition 2.1 Linear Transformation

A transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ is said to be *linear* if for any two vectors $\vec{a}, \vec{b} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and any scalar $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$:

1. $T(\vec{a} + \vec{b}) = T(\vec{a}) + T(\vec{b})$, and
2. $T(\alpha\vec{a}) = \alpha T(\vec{a})$.

We can combine the above two criteria using an additional scalar $\beta \in \mathbb{R}$: T is linear if

$$T(\alpha\vec{a} + \beta\vec{b}) = \alpha T(\vec{a}) + \beta T(\vec{b}).$$

π

Just like with vectors, the first condition is called **additivity** and the second condition is called **homogeneity**. What these conditions say, in simple words, is that we can always scale vectors and add them together before we apply the a linear transformation - and the result will be equal to scaling and adding the transformed vectors. So in practice we can choose what we want to calculate first (addition and scaling or the transformation) according to what is easier and/or more convinient to calculate.

Let's see now how to use this definition to show that a transformation is linear. We can start with the identity transformation since it's a very simple transformation.

- **Additivity:** for any $\vec{a}, \vec{b} \in \mathbb{R}^2$, we have

$$I(\vec{a}) = \vec{a}, \quad I(\vec{b}) = \vec{b}, \tag{2.2}$$

and also that

$$I(\vec{a} + \vec{b}) = \vec{a} + \vec{b}. \tag{2.3}$$

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Therefore, if we first add the vectors $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$ together and then apply I on the result, we get

$$I(\vec{a} + \vec{b}) \overset{\text{from Equation 2.3}}{=} \vec{a} + \vec{b} \overset{\text{from Equation 2.2}}{=} I(\vec{a}) + I(\vec{b}). \quad (2.4)$$

- **Homogeneity:** for any vector $\vec{a} \in \mathbb{R}^2$ and scalar $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ we have

$$I(\alpha\vec{a}) = \alpha\vec{a}, \quad (2.5)$$

and together with Equation 2.2 (specifically its first equality) we get

$$I(\alpha\vec{a}) = \alpha\vec{a} = \alpha I(\vec{a}). \quad (2.6)$$

Fullfilling these two conditions proves that I is indeed a linear transformation.

Next, let's see that rotation (about the origin) is also a linear transformation, starting with the simple 90° anti-clockwise rotation. Recall that a 2-dimensional vector $\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} a_x \\ a_y \end{bmatrix}$ can be rotated by 90° anti-clockwise by exchanging its components and then adding a minus sign to the first component (REF TO TRICK):

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_x \\ a_y \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow[\text{(anti-clockwise)}]{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} -a_y \\ a_x \end{bmatrix}.$$

Using this fact we can easily show that a 90° rotation is a linear transformation:

- **Additivity:** we need two vectors, let's call them

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} a_x \\ a_y \end{bmatrix} \text{ and } \vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} b_x \\ b_y \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then, adding the vectors first and then rotating the result we get

$$R_{90^\circ}(\vec{a} + \vec{b}) = R_{90^\circ} \left(\begin{bmatrix} a_x \\ a_y \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} b_x \\ b_y \end{bmatrix} \right) = R_{90^\circ} \left(\begin{bmatrix} a_x + b_x \\ a_y + b_y \end{bmatrix} \right) = \begin{bmatrix} -(a_y + b_y) \\ a_x + b_x \end{bmatrix}.$$

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And if we first rotate the vectors and then add the result we get

$$R_{90^\circ}(\vec{a}) + R_{90^\circ}(\vec{b}) = \begin{bmatrix} -a_y \\ a_x \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} -b_y \\ b_x \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -(a_y + b_y) \\ a_x + b_x \end{bmatrix},$$

exactly the same as before.

• **Homogeneity:** if we scale $\vec{a}$ by some scalar² $s \in \mathbb{R}$ first and then rotating the result we get

$$R_{90^\circ}(s\vec{a}) = R_{90^\circ}\left(s \begin{bmatrix} -a_y \\ a_x \end{bmatrix}\right) = R_{90^\circ}\left(\begin{bmatrix} sa_x \\ sa_y \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} -sa_y \\ sa_x \end{bmatrix}.$$

And if we first rotate $\vec{a}$ and then scale it by s we get

$$sR_{90^\circ}(\vec{a}) = s \begin{bmatrix} -a_y \\ a_x \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -sa_y \\ sa_x \end{bmatrix},$$

again - the same result as before.

Together this means that rotating around the origin anti-clockwise by 90° is indeed a linear transformation.

Moving on, let's show that a rotation around the origin by *any* angle θ is a linear transformation. To start, we need to know how to transform a general 2-dimensional vector $\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} a_x \\ a_y \end{bmatrix}$, which we will find, of course, by using basic trigonometry (use [Figure 2.4](#) to follow these steps). First, we calculate the norm of $\vec{a}$ (which we'll call $\mathbf{a}$ for convenience):

$$\mathbf{a} = \|\vec{a}\| = \sqrt{a_x^2 + a_y^2}. \quad (2.7)$$

We can then express $\vec{a}$ in polar coordinates (REF), as it's a more natural way of dealing with angles (and thus - rotations):

$$a_x = \mathbf{a} \cos(\alpha), \quad (2.8)$$

$$a_y = \mathbf{a} \sin(\alpha). \quad (2.9)$$

²I'm using s here instead of the usual α because I want to avoid confusion the scalar with an angle.

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Rotating the $\vec{a}$ by θ yields a new vector $\vec{b}$ which has the same norm as $\vec{a}$ (since rotating a vector doesn't change its norm), and an angle $\beta = \alpha + \theta$. Therefore in polar coordinates $\vec{b}$ is

$$b_x = \mathbf{a} \cos(\beta) = \mathbf{a} \cos(\alpha + \theta), \quad (2.10)$$

$$b_y = \mathbf{a} \sin(\beta) = \mathbf{a} \sin(\alpha + \theta). \quad (2.11)$$

Using the trigonometric identities for the *cos* and *sin* of a sum of two angles (REF), we get:

$$b_x = \mathbf{a} \cos(\alpha + \theta) = \mathbf{a} [\cos(\alpha) \cos(\theta) - \sin(\alpha) \sin(\theta)], \quad (2.12)$$

$$b_y = \mathbf{a} \sin(\alpha + \theta) = \mathbf{a} [\sin(\alpha) \cos(\theta) + \cos(\alpha) \sin(\theta)]. \quad (2.13)$$

$$(2.14)$$

Now, we can express α in terms of the inverse trigonometric functions *arccos* and *arcsin*:

$$\alpha = \arccos\left(\frac{a_x}{\mathbf{a}}\right) = \arcsin\left(\frac{a_y}{\mathbf{a}}\right). \quad (2.15)$$

Substituting [Equation 2.15](#) into [Equation 2.14](#) we get

$$\begin{aligned} b_x &= \mathbf{a} [\cos(\alpha) \cos(\theta) - \sin(\alpha) \sin(\theta)] \\ &= \mathbf{a} \left[\cos\left(\arccos\left(\frac{a_x}{\mathbf{a}}\right)\right) \cos(\theta) - \sin\left(\arcsin\left(\frac{a_y}{\mathbf{a}}\right)\right) \sin(\theta) \right] \\ &= \cancel{\mathbf{a}} \left[\frac{a_x}{\cancel{\mathbf{a}}} \cos(\theta) - \frac{a_y}{\cancel{\mathbf{a}}} \sin(\theta) \right] \\ &= a_x \cos(\theta) - a_y \sin(\theta), \end{aligned} \quad (2.16)$$

$$\begin{aligned} b_y &= \mathbf{a} [\sin(\alpha) \cos(\theta) + \cos(\alpha) \sin(\theta)] \\ &= \mathbf{a} \left[\sin\left(\arcsin\left(\frac{a_y}{\mathbf{a}}\right)\right) \cos(\theta) + \cos\left(\arcsin\left(\frac{a_y}{\mathbf{a}}\right)\right) \sin(\theta) \right] \\ &= \cancel{\mathbf{a}} \left[\frac{a_y}{\cancel{\mathbf{a}}} \cos(\theta) + \frac{a_x}{\cancel{\mathbf{a}}} \sin(\theta) \right] \\ &= a_x \sin(\theta) + a_y \cos(\theta), \end{aligned} \quad (2.17)$$

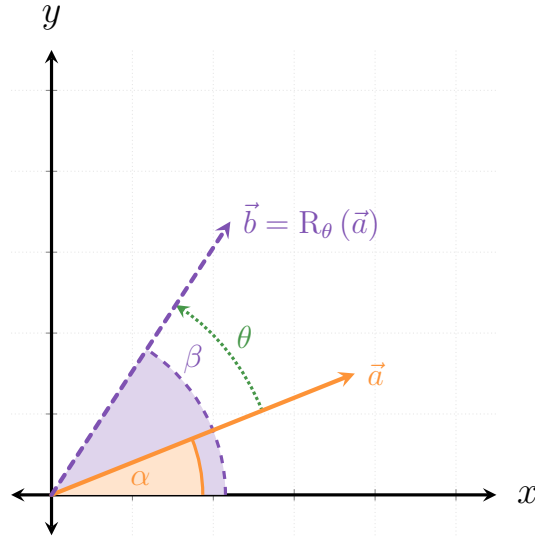


Figure 2.4: Text will be here.

2.3.6 3-Dimensional Linear Transformations

2.3.7 Calculating Linear Transformations

Linear transformations have a very nice property which makes applying them on different vectors an extremely efficient process. Consider the linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ which is a composition of scaling by a factor of 2 in the y -direction followed by a rotation of 90° anti-clockwise around the origin. Now let's say that we wish to calculate how T transforms the vector

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

In principle, we could simply apply the operations one after the other on $\vec{a}$:

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{a}). \quad (2.18)$$

Now, what happens if we wish to calculate a more complicated linear transformation, which is both composed out of many more basic transformations - and also

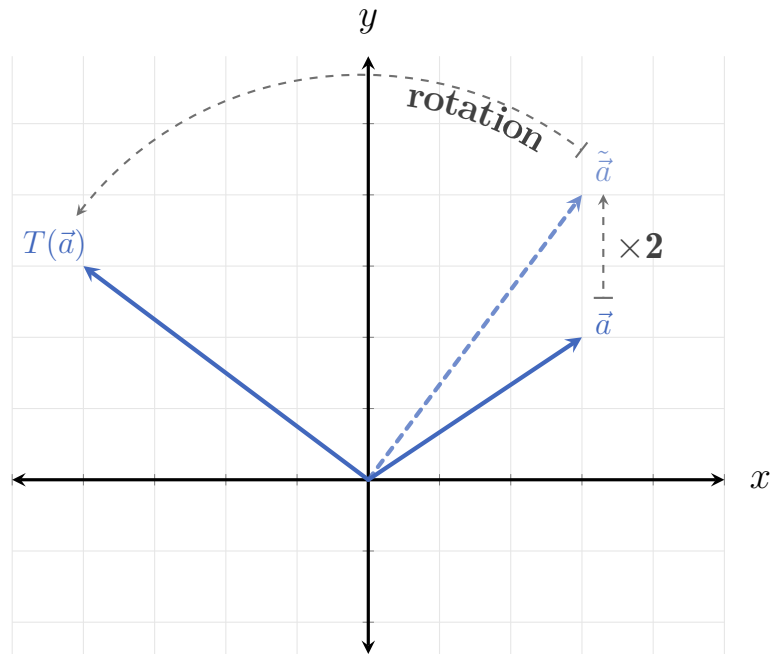


Figure 2.5: The transformation T applied to $\vec{a}$: first the vector is scaled by 2 in the y -direction, and then rotated by 90° anti-clockwise.

acts on higher-dimensional vectors? Performing each transformation step might not be so straight-forward, and is definitely not an efficient process. In fact, even if we're dealing with a simple example just like the one we just saw, we would still need to apply it every time we want to calculate how a new vector is transformed.

It turns out that thanks to the simplicity of linear transformations³ we only need to perform a few simple calculations per transformation to practically get any possible application of it on any vector!

To see how this is the case, let's go back to our simple 2-dimensional example. First, recall that we can express any vector in terms of the standard basis vectors (REF), which in this case gives us (note the color-coding)

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{3} \\ \textcolor{blue}{2} \end{bmatrix} = \textcolor{red}{3} \begin{bmatrix} \hat{e}_1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + \textcolor{blue}{2} \begin{bmatrix} \hat{e}_2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.19)$$

³more correctly: to the strict rules they enforce

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We can then apply the defining properties of linear transformations (REF) on $\vec{a}$:

$$\begin{aligned}
 T \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} &= T \left(3 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right) \\
 &= T \left(3 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \right) + T \left(2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right) \\
 &= 3T \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 2T \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= 3T(\hat{e}_1) + 2T(\hat{e}_2).
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.20}$$

Now, applying T to the two standard basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 \hat{e}_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_1) \\
 \hat{e}_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\quad} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\quad} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_2)
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.21}$$

And when we use these transformed basis vectors in the linear combination we finally get

$$\begin{aligned}
 3T(\hat{e}_1) + 2T(\hat{e}_2) &= 3 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 2 \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix},
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.22}$$

which is exactly what we got when we calculated T 's effect directly on $\vec{a}$ (cf. Equation 2.24).

Notice exactly what happened: in the standard basis representation, $\vec{a}$ had the coefficients 3 and 2 for $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$, respectively. When applying T to $\vec{a}$ these two coefficients remained, but the basis changed: instead of $\{\hat{e}_1, \hat{e}_2\}$, the two basis vectors became $\{T(\hat{e}_1), T(\hat{e}_2)\}$.

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Of course, this is not unique to $\vec{a}$. For example, let's look at another vector,

$$\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Its coefficients in the standard basis representation are 2 and -4, respectively. So we expect $T(\vec{b})$ to be

$$\begin{aligned} T(\vec{b}) &= 2T(\hat{e}_1) - 4T(\hat{e}_2) \\ &= 2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - 4 \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}. \end{aligned} \tag{2.23}$$

If we now calculate $T(\vec{b})$ directly, we get the following:

$$\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -8 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{b}). \tag{2.24}$$

What this insight shows us is that given a linear transformation, we only need to know how it transforms the respective standard basis vectors in order to calculate how it transform any vector in its domain. The transformed version of the vector would simply be the linear combination of these transformed basis vectors, with the coefficients given by the vector's presentation in the standard basis. It really can't get any simpler than that!

To make this a bit more formal, let's look at the most generic case: say $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is a linear transformation⁴. Then applying T to a vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ in its standard basis representation,

$$\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix},$$

⁴we'll deal with the more general case of $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ where $n \neq m$ in the next section.

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we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 T(\vec{v}) &= T \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= T(v_1 \hat{e}_1 + v_2 \hat{e}_2 + \cdots + v_n \hat{e}_n) \\
 &= v_1 T(\hat{e}_1) + v_2 T(\hat{e}_2) + \cdots + v_n T(\hat{e}_n).
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.25}$$

This is an incredibly powerful insight which allows us to save a lot of calculations - and which we will use in the next section to make the calculations of linear transformations *even more* concise and simple, using the power of...

2.4 MATRICES

2.4.1 Representing Linear Transformations as Matrices

Following our example from the end of the previous section, let's look again at the result of applying T from Equation 2.24 on the vector $\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$.

Since we know how T transforms the basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ (Equation 2.21), we can $T(\vec{a})$ in the following way:

$$T(\vec{a}) = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} = \overset{a_1}{\downarrow} \overset{\color{red}{3}}{\uparrow} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + \overset{a_2}{\downarrow} \overset{\color{blue}{2}}{\uparrow} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot \color{red}{3} - 2 \cdot \color{blue}{2} \\ 1 \cdot \color{red}{3} + 0 \cdot \color{blue}{2} \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.26)$$

$\uparrow$ $T(\hat{e}_1)$ $\uparrow$ $T(\hat{e}_2)$

Then, we collect all the coefficients in black into a single structure, which we call a **matrix**:

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.27)$$

Finally, we define the action of the matrix $\mathbf{M}$ on the vector $\vec{a}$ as following:

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \color{red}{3} \\ \color{blue}{2} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot \color{red}{3} - 2 \cdot \color{blue}{2} \\ 1 \cdot \color{red}{3} + 0 \cdot \color{blue}{2} \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{a}). \quad (2.28)$$

Of course, we should make sure that the matrix $\mathbf{M}$ we just defined works for other vectors as well. If we apply $\mathbf{M}$ to the second vector from our example, $\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix}$, we get

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \color{red}{2} \\ \color{blue}{-4} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot \color{red}{2} - 2 \cdot \color{blue}{-4} \\ 1 \cdot \color{red}{2} + 0 \cdot \color{blue}{-4} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{b}), \quad (2.29)$$

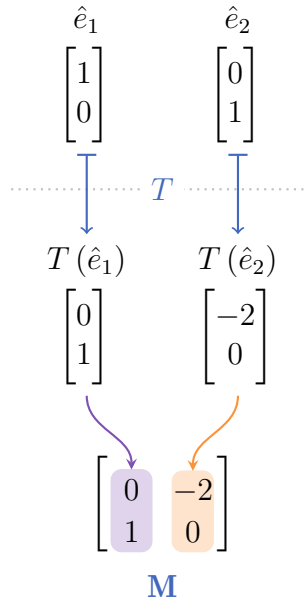
which is exactly the result we got in Equation 2.23. Great!

Why not continue checking how this matrix-vector product we developed works for other vectors? First, let's check $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ for which we already know the results (Equation 2.24):

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{M}\hat{e}_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 0 \\ 1 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_1), \\ \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 0 - 2 \cdot 1 \\ 1 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_2),\end{aligned}\tag{2.30}$$

exactly the results we expected.

Perhaps you've noticed something by now - the columns of $\mathbf{M}$ are exactly the vectors $T(\hat{e}_1)$ and $T(\hat{e}_2)$ in the right order:



The most general transformation we can have using $\mathbf{M}$ would be applying it to a general vector, $\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2$:

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot x - 2 \cdot y \\ 1 \cdot x + 0 \cdot y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -2y \\ x \end{bmatrix}.\tag{2.31}$$

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Of course, this result is exactly what we expect, as we can see when we apply each step of T on the generic vector $\vec{v}$:

$$\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ 2y \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} -2y \\ x \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.32)$$

OK, up until now everything we did was for a specific transformation we called T . However, we can build a matrix for a general linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$. Such a transformation has the form

$$T \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ax + by \\ cx + dy \end{bmatrix},$$

where $a, b, c, d \in \mathbb{R}$ (REF), and using the same process as in [Equation 2.26](#) we get the general matrix

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.33)$$

Just like in our specific example, the columns of $\mathbf{M}$ are exactly the images of the basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$, respectively. To confirm this, let's apply the $\mathbf{M}$ on both basis vectors:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot 1 + b \cdot 0 \\ c \cdot 1 + d \cdot 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ c \end{bmatrix} = M_1, \\ \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot 0 + b \cdot 1 \\ c \cdot 0 + d \cdot 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} b \\ d \end{bmatrix} = M_2. \end{aligned} \quad (2.34)$$

Note that I use M_1 and M_2 to denote the 1-st and 2-nd columns of $\mathbf{M}$, respectively.

In most textbooks and courses I've seen, the process of multiplying a matrix $\mathbf{M}$ by a vector $\vec{v}$ is described as following: the i -th component of the resulting vector (in our case $i \in \{1, 2\}$) is the *dot product* of the i -th row of $\mathbf{M}$ and the vector $\vec{v}$ itself. This is exactly what happens in practice in the development process we went through here - if we name the resulting vector of $\mathbf{M}\vec{v}$ as $\vec{w}$ we get its following two components:

$$\left. \begin{aligned} w_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot x + b \cdot y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ax + by \end{bmatrix} \\ w_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} c \cdot x + d \cdot y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} cx + dy \end{bmatrix} \end{aligned} \right\} \rightarrow \vec{w} = \begin{bmatrix} ax + by \\ cx + dy \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.35)$$

2.4. MATRICES

Of course, this is just the case for a matrix representing a general linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$. Matrices representing such transformations have 4 components, since they are made of 2 basis vectors as columns, each having 2 components (since the vectors live in $\mathbb{R}^2$). We also say that the matrix lives in the space $\mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$.

In general (also in higher-dimensional cases), we use 2 indices to denote the components of any matrix: the 1st index for the *row* of the component and the 2nd index for the *column* of the component. For example, a general matrix $\mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$ can be written as

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.36)$$

where it is important to remember that there are two indices here - and not a single number. For example, a_{11} should be read as “a-one-one” (i.e. the component in the 1st row and the 1st column), and not as “a-eleven”. Similarly, a_{12} is “a-one-two” (not “a-twelve”), a_{21} is “a-two-one”, etc. The reason this notation is used (as much as it might be confusing at first) is lazyness: nobody wants to write redundant commas (i.e. $a_{1,1}$). It is what it is, and you will get used to it “_(‘\`)/”

We can now finally move on to the most general form of a linear transformation between a real vector space to itself, i.e. $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$. The most general vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ has the form

$$\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.37)$$

and therefore the application of a generic linear transformation from $\mathbb{R}^n$ to itself on $\vec{v}$ yields the vector

$$T(\vec{v}) = \vec{w} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11}v_1 + a_{12}v_2 + \cdots + a_{1n}v_n \\ a_{21}v_1 + a_{22}v_2 + \cdots + a_{2n}v_n \\ \vdots \\ a_{n1}v_1 + a_{n2}v_2 + \cdots + a_{nn}v_n \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.38)$$

where $a_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}$ (with $i, j \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$). Of course, denoting the components as a_{ij} is alluding to the next step - collecting them into a matrix:

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.39)$$

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Just like in the 2×2 case, the i -th column vector of $\mathbf{A}$ shows how it transforms $\hat{e}_i$ (which in this case lives in the space $\mathbb{R}^n$, of course):

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} \overset{T(\hat{e}_1)}{\downarrow} a_{11} & \overset{T(\hat{e}_2)}{\downarrow} a_{12} & \cdots & \overset{T(\hat{e}_n)}{\downarrow} a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Therefore, in general we define the product of an $n \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ (otherwise written as $\mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$) and a vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ to be

$$\mathbf{A}\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11}v_1 + a_{12}v_2 + \cdots + a_{1n}v_n \\ a_{21}v_1 + a_{22}v_2 + \cdots + a_{2n}v_n \\ \vdots \\ a_{n1}v_1 + a_{n2}v_2 + \cdots + a_{nn}v_n \end{bmatrix} = \vec{w}. \quad (2.40)$$

Indeed, this can be presented (as it often does) in the following way: the i -th coefficient of the vector $\vec{w} = \mathbf{A}\vec{v}$ is the dot product of the i -th row of $\mathbf{A}$ and the vector $\vec{v}$. To see this in practice, follow closely how each of the rows 1, 2 and n of $\mathbf{A}$ in Equation 2.40 are dot-multiplied with $\vec{v}$ to yields the corresponding component of $\vec{w}$.

Note 2.1 Square Matrices

All the kinds of matrices we defined so far are called **square matrices**, since they have an equal number of rows and columns (since they map from any vector space $\mathbb{R}^n$ to itself) - i.e. their dimensions are of the form $n \times n$.

However, in general matrices can represent any kind of linear transformation - also those that map between different real vector spaces, i.e. $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ (where $n \neq m$). These matrices would be of order $m \times n$, and are of course **not** square matrices. However, since square matrices are the easiest to understand when first learning the topic, and they also happen to play a very important role in linear algebra - I chose to concentrate on them in the beginning, before moving on to more general matrices.

!

2.4.2 The Fundamental Linear Transformations as Matrices

Let us now use the process we developed above to represent the fundamental $\mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ linear transformations (REF) in matrix form. Since we're dealing with transformations from $\mathbb{R}^2$ to itself, the matrices representing these transformations are of dimension 2×2 , i.e. they live in the space $\mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$.

We start with the most boring linear transformation: the identity transformation I . As a reminder, I maps *any* vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^2$ to itself: $I(\vec{v}) = \vec{v}$. In particular, it takes the two standard basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ and maps them to themselves:

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{I} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{I} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.41)$$

Very exciting indeed. Knowing how I transforms $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ we can use their maps as the columns of the matrix representation of I :

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\ \downarrow I & & \downarrow I \\ I(\hat{e}_1) & & I(\hat{e}_2) \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\ \searrow \quad \swarrow & & \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} & & \\ \mathbb{I}_2 & & \end{array} \quad (2.42)$$

($\mathbb{I}$ is a common notation for identity matrices, and the index 2 signifies that this is the specific 2×2 identity matrix)

The next type of fundamental linear transformations we should represent in matrix form are the scaling matrices. Instead of calculating their representation separately, let's directly find the matrix representation of the linear transformation S which scales any vector by α in the x -direction and by β in the y -direction:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & \text{--- } S \text{ ---} & \downarrow \\
 S(\hat{e}_1) & & S(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \alpha \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \beta \end{bmatrix} \\
 \swarrow \quad \searrow & & \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \alpha & 0 \\ 0 & \beta \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{--- } S \text{ ---} & &
 \end{array} \tag{2.43}$$

$\mathbf{S}$ has an important property: it only has non-zero entries in a_{11} and a_{22} : we call these elements together the **main diagonal** of the matrix. A matrix which has non-zero entries only in its main diagonal is unsurprisingly called a **diagonal matrix**⁵.

Note 2.2 The Identity Matrix is a Diagonal Matrix

In the specific case where $\alpha = \beta = 1$ a scaling matrix essentially does nothing: it scales by 1 in both directions. Indeed, in this case it becomes the identity matrix $\mathbb{I}_2$.

!

The next family of linear transformations to represent as matrices are the rotations around the origin. Again, we don't really need to think too much: just check the results of rotating $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ by θ anti-clockwise. Since $\hat{e}_1$ is a unit vector, rotating it by θ anti-clockwise around the origin gives another unit vector (since rotating a vector doesn't change its norm), which is at an *theta* to the x -axis. Its coordinates are then exactly the polar coordinates of a vector at θ to the x -axis but with $R = 1$ (see REF TO POLAR COORDINATES EQUATION):

$$R_\theta(\hat{e}_1) = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) \end{bmatrix}. \tag{2.44}$$

⁵this might seem unremarkable now, but in higher dimensions these matrices are very important.

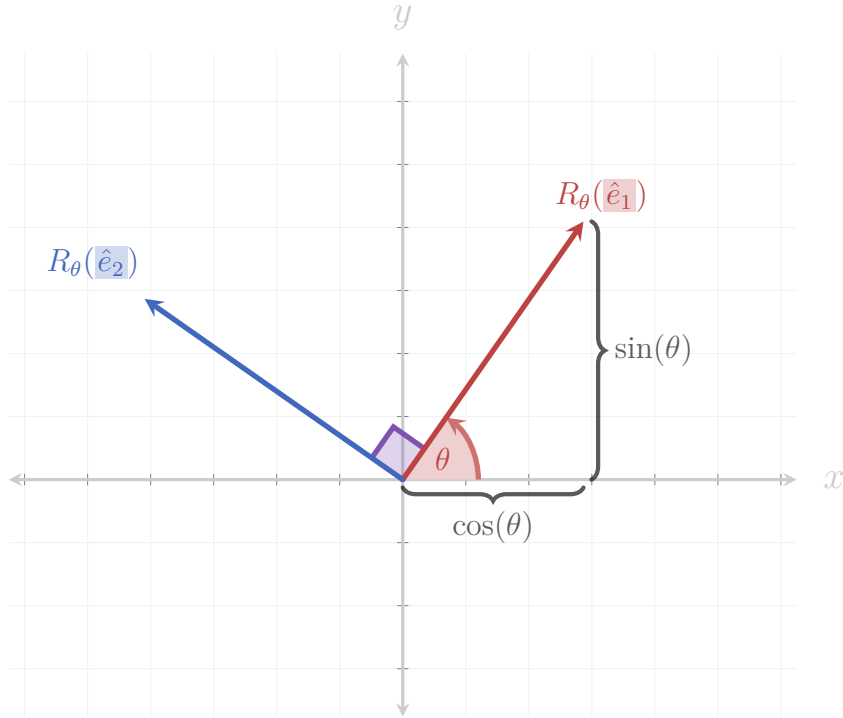


Figure 2.6: The two basis vectors $\hat{e}_1, \hat{e}_2$ rotated by an angle θ anti-clockwise around the origin. The coordinates of the rotated $\hat{e}_1$ are simply the polar coordinates of a general vector which is at an angle θ to the x -axis, with $R = 1$ (since $\hat{e}_1$ is a unit vector).

Since the rotated $\hat{e}_2$ is orthogonal to the rotated $\hat{e}_1$ we can use the orthogonality trick in 2-dimensions to find its coordinates (REF TO ORTHOGONALITY TRICK IN 2D):

$$R_\theta(\hat{e}_2) = \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.45)$$

(see Figure 2.6 for a visualization of this idea)

Therefore, the rotation matrix $\mathbf{R}_\theta$ is

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & R_\theta & \downarrow \\
 R_\theta(\hat{e}_1) & & R_\theta(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin \theta \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & & \downarrow \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin \theta \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix} \\
 & \mathbf{R}_\theta &
 \end{array}
 \tag{2.46}$$

Let's check some specific examples of rotating matrices, starting with $\theta = 0$. This gives the matrix

$$\mathbf{R}_0 = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(0) & -\sin(0) \\ \sin(0) & \cos(0) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbb{I}_2, \tag{2.47}$$

which is exactly what we expect, since a rotation by $\theta = 0$ doesn't do anything, so we get back the identity matrix.

A rotation by $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ (equivalent to 90°) is done by the matrix

$$\mathbf{R}_{\frac{\pi}{2}} = \begin{bmatrix} \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) & -\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) \\ \sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) & \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}. \tag{2.48}$$

This is a nice result: rotating by $\frac{\pi}{2}$ is equivalent to switching the two basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ and then flipping the “new” $\hat{e}_2$ around so it faces in the negative x -direction.

Before continuing to $\text{mat}R_\pi$ let's see what we expect: rotating a vector by $\theta = \pi$ is simply inverting it (i.e. negating both its coordinates). And indeed,

$$\mathbf{R}_\pi = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\pi) & -\sin(\pi) \\ \sin(\pi) & \cos(\pi) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix}, \tag{2.49}$$

which is exactly the identity matrix with all its entries negating. How cool is that?

Ok, next up: reflections! Reflecting a vector across the x -axis is simply flipping it⁶ vertically - so its x -component doesn't change, and its y -component gets flipped. The result for the basis vectors is that $\hat{e}_1$ stays the same (i.e. reflecting $\hat{e}_1$ across the x axis doesn't change it), while $\hat{e}_2$ gets flipped:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow \text{ref}_x & & \downarrow \text{ref}_x \\
 \text{ref}_x(\hat{e}_1) & & \text{ref}_x(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & & \downarrow \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{ref}_x
 \end{array} \tag{2.50}$$

Similarly, reflecting a vector across the y -axis flips their x -coordinate and keeps

⁶yes, I also laughed when writing this.

their y -coordinate untouched, i.e. $\hat{e}_1$ gets flipped and $\hat{e}_2$ remains the same:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow \text{ref}_y & \text{ref}_y & \downarrow \\
 \text{ref}_y(\hat{e}_1) & & \text{ref}_y(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \swarrow \quad \searrow & & \\
 \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{ref}_y
 \end{array}
 \tag{2.51}$$

See ?? for a visualization.

Before we can build a general reflection matrix (i.e. representing a reflection across *any* line going through the origin, not only the axes) we need to learn a couple of more things, so we'll skip that for now and hop on to building matrices for shear transformations.

2.5 LINEAR EQUATIONS

2.6 EIGENVECTORS AND EIGENVALUES

2.7 MATRIX DECOMPOSITIONS
